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The Yale Political Quarterly

An Undergraduate Publication

VOLUME 22, NUMBER 3, APRIL-MAY 2001

FOUNDED 1979

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4 **China's Defensive Military Paradigm**
Tienleong Tan
Tienleong is a junior in Saybrook College, majoring in Political Science. He is a native of Singapore with an interest in objectively analyzing Sino-U.S. relations.

The author examines present Sino-U.S relations, with a particular focus on the recent diplomatic controversy surrounding the crashed U.S. spy plane.

9 **Book Review: Jonathan Rauch's *Government's End***
Vijay Sekhon
The author is an undergraduate at the University of California at Berkeley, majoring in Political Science and Development Studies. Research for this article was supervised by graduate student, John McNulty, and UC-Berkeley American Politics Professor, Jack Citrin.

Vijay analyzes the author's book that describes the phenomenon of "hyperpluralism," or the rapid proliferation of interest groups, and its effects on the American government.

12 **World Hegemony: Escaping the American Perspective**
Milan A. Milenkovic
Milan is a senior Political Science major in Trumbull College.

By discussing historical examples of various hegemons, the author seeks to explore American hegemony in the modern context.

China's Defensive Military Paradigm

Tienleong Tan

THE COLLISION OF THE EP-3E ARIES MARITIME RECONNAISSANCE PLANE AND the Chinese F-8 fighter plane near the coast of Hainan Island in China in April 2001 brings US-China relations to its lowest point ever. In light of this collision and the acrimonious fault-finding that has ensued, two thorny questions have emerged: First, did America have a right to carry out reconnaissance flights off the coast of China and, second, did China have a right in scrambling fighters to intercept the aircraft? In this short paper, I argue that the answers to these questions do not lie in the facts of the incident. The specific facts of the incident have been sufficiently altered and twisted to support the respective party. Rather, I argue that if we can debunk the misguided assumptions that underpin the increasingly bellicose US-Sino relationship, the answers will be clear.

America wrongly assumes China as a threat to its allies and hegemony in the Pacific. This "bogeyman" assumption stems from the Cold War and runs the risk of becoming a self-fulfilling prophecy. China, on the other hand, is a culturally proud nation but suffers from a deep-seated insecurity with foreign powers. Despite her military inferiority, China desires to deal with America as an equal. To paint China, however, as a credible threat to US military power in the Pacific is giving China too much credit. If China's military modernization is examined, it will be clear that it is defensive in nature. It is imperative that clarity and a healthy sense of history be restored to the relationship. In my opinion, this will guarantee peace between America and China.

Why was the EP-3E plane collision significant? Spying between nations is a common practice. It allows for a country to accurately gauge the intentions and capacities of a target country. When such covert efforts are exposed, a temporary halt of intelligence gathering efforts, or at least the appearance of doing so, is called. This unfortunate incident, however, was particularly significant. Despite America's overt reconnaissance in peacetime being publicly exposed and repeated Chinese requests to stop such provocative flights, American policymakers have steadfastly refused to do so. Instead, Secretary of Defense Donald Rumsfield, a Cold War Navy pilot, insists that America must continue spying and that "continued intelligence gathering is necessary to maintain the peace of the Pacific region." It is clear, therefore, that American policy makers regard China as a threat to regional peace and stability. Rumsfield refers to the maintenance of the "peace" that America's ally, Taiwan, enjoys and the possible violation of that "peace" by China. Also, President George Bush has used the words "strategic competitor" repeatedly to indicate his assessment of China. Clearly, American policy makers view China as a security threat. There are two principal issues that deserve examination. First, the issue of Taiwan, as yet, remains unsolved and second, American policymakers believe that China's military modernization threatens the American military hegemony in the Pacific.

China has openly declared that mili-

tary force would be used to reoccupy Taiwan if and only if Taiwan declares unilateral independence. While it is fair to say that a state of tension exists, it is incorrect to conclude that China poses a military threat to Taiwan. China does not seek to *unilaterally* do military harm to Taiwan. Both China and the US concur that "there is but one China and that Taiwan is a part of China." It is clear that Taiwan is indisputably part of China and, at the same time, both China and the US do not wish to see forceful reoccupation take place. Economically, China has too much to lose. Cross-strait investment, i.e. investment by Taiwanese businessmen on the Chinese mainland, is estimated at forty billion dollars. China, focussed on domestic economic development, does not want to shut off this lucrative stream of capital investment. In fact, China's current goals are domestic-driven rather than expansionist. Rather, I argue that the military ball, so to speak, is in Taiwan's court. If Taiwan should wantonly declare independence, then China has no choice but to follow through on her promises of military conflict. Otherwise, Chinese policymakers are perfectly content to allow the issue of Taiwan to simmer and hope for peaceful reunification in the future. In 1997, Lee Teng Hui, then Taiwanese Prime Minister, obtained a visa to visit Cornell. Taiwanese nationalists, eager to advance Taiwanese independence, utilized this opportunity to celebrate Taiwanese independence. China protested to the US and, when the Clinton administration appeared indifferent, China began a troop buildup in the coastal states of Fujian and Zhejiang. Cruise missile tests were also conducted with the impact area one hundred miles off northern Taiwan. As a direct result of Taiwanese attempts at political independence, China resorted to "saber-rattling" measures. Because Taiwan attempted to "flirt" with independence, China had to resort to military measures. Therefore, I would conclude that the key to peaceful resolution of the Taiwan-China impasse does not lie in China's court. Chinese policy towards Taiwan is clearly stated and is in accordance with international agreements. It is the Taiwanese initiative that could lead to military conflict.

American policymakers also argue that China would impose an authoritarian communist regime on Taiwanese citizens, thus stripping them of the right to enjoy democracy. In this line of argument, used to prosecute the Korean and Vietnam War, America reserves the right to defend, military if need be, the right of Taiwanese citizens to enjoy democracy and freedom. The reunification of Hongkong in 1997 and Macau in 2000 suggests, however, that reunification under the "one country, two systems" model would not undercut the domestic freedoms of Taiwanese citizens. China has honored her agreement to allow Hongkong and Macau to exercise complete unimpeded domestic politics. Hongkong, for example, enjoys complete freedom of speech and a high level of democratic political representation. When China outlawed Falungong (a Chinese religious sect) in early 2000, Falungong activists shifted their political base to Hongkong. China made no attempts to supercede Hongkong political authority in order to curb Falungong influence. Despite repeated embarrassing criticisms from Falungong activists based in Hongkong, China honored the "one country, two systems" model and did not intervene to curb their protests.

As a direct result of Taiwanese attempts at political independence, China resorted to "saber-rattling" measures. Because Taiwan attempted to "flirt" with independence, China had to resort to military measures.

Since a corollary argument for defending Taiwan is to protect the democratic rights of her citizens, China's empirical actions thus far show that Taiwanese citizens will enjoy no less of a level of democratic participation as they do right now. Furthermore, it is inconsistent to suggest that, if China will impose authoritarian control over Taiwanese citizens, then American policymakers have a moral duty protect their democratic rights. After the Kuomintang (KMT) fled China in 1949, Chiang Kai Shek and his son, Chiang Ching Kuo, instituted an oppressive political regime in Taiwan. With the tacit approval of American policymakers displayed through the supply of American weaponry and US Army Special Forces training, the KMT successfully instituted a police state. Secret police surveillance, physical intimidation and, in some cases, assassinations were authorized to eliminate possible KMT opposition. Under the aegis of American support, domestic political opposition was brutally crushed. Since America's moral position on democracy shifts according to the times, America's moral claim to defend the democratic political values of Taiwanese citizens appears inconsistent.

American policymakers fear that a modern Chinese military would erode American military hegemony in Asia-Pacific.

Why does America fear an increasingly modern Chinese military? American policymakers fear that a modern Chinese military would erode American military hegemony in Asia-Pacific. American policymakers like Secretary of State, Colin Powell, steadfastly refuse to accede to Chinese requests and stop reconnaissance flights because American policymakers want to reserve the right to monitor the rise of Chinese military power. In fact, the EP-3E plane was on a reconnaissance mission to learn about the operational doctrine of the recently acquired Sovremmeny class destroyers when the unfortunate collision occurred. However, in evaluating the threat of an assertive Chinese military, the nature and intent of China's military modernization must be discerned before policymakers conclude, too hastily, that China is seeking to throw off US military dominance in the Pacific.

I would argue that the defensive imperative, rather than the offensive, drives the Chinese military modernization. There have been two major military developments in the 1990s that deserve examination: missile forces and naval forces. The development of Chinese missile forces took on a grave urgency after the Gulf War in 1991 when China witnessed the cost-effective yet devastating effects of American "stand-off" weapons. As a result, a crash program was undertaken to develop its missile weapons like the DF-31 (Dong-Feng) ICBM and the Silkworm anti-ship missile. The missile program was developed to mimic the technological advantage that America enjoys. This technological development ensures that the Chinese military would enjoy the same "stand-off" capabilities and strike from long range as American missile forces. While China developed its missile weapons, it is important to note that China also adheres to the Missile Technology Control Regime (MTCR). The MTCR is an international treaty that prohibits the export of technology necessary for the development of missile technology. As a result, since 1998, China has cut off all shipments of missile aid to Iran and Pakistan (countries that America designates as rogue states). Thus, China relinquished a lucrative source of foreign exchange in order to conform to international norms. The contradiction between the frantic development of indigenous missile technology and, at the

same time, the restriction of missile technology exports China willingly subjected herself to is reconcilable if the defensive imperative drives China's missile development program, i.e. to possess a sufficiently cost effective means of deterrence. Also, despite the initial success of the DF-31, an intercontinental ballistic missile that could hit Hawaii and the west coast states, China has shifted precious resources away from further research and focussed on naval modernization. Clearly, threatening the continental USA is not a priority.

Furthermore, China's naval acquisitions provide evidence of the defensive nature of China's military modernization. China's two main naval acquisitions are the Kilo-class submarine and the Soveremmeny destroyers. These acquisitions were not made to develop a "blue-water" navy, i.e. a self-sustaining naval force that can project military force far into the Pacific. Rather, these acquisitions were a defensive measure. To affirm support for Taiwan in times of international crisis, the US 7th Fleet has sailed through the Taiwan Straits twice, in 1950 and in 1997. Both in 1950 and in 1997, the 7th Fleet sailed within forty miles of China's shoreline and, because the Chinese navy was technologically decrepit, China could not challenge such a provocative act to its maritime borders. Chinese naval acquisitions were made to prevent the reoccurrence of a US Carrier Group sailing precariously close to China's coastline. The Sovremenny-class destroyers are equipped with SS-21 "Sunburn" missiles designed to specifically evade the Aegis radar of US Naval Carrier Groups and threaten the capital ships such as the aircraft carriers. The Kilo-class submarines were also acquired to act as a credible subsurface deterrent to US Naval forces. In so doing, it deters the US 7th Fleet from approaching the Chinese coast with impunity. However, Kilo-class submarines have a very limited operating range and cannot operate much further than the Okinawa Island chain. As a military platform to project force into the Pacific, it is insufficient. Thus, the intent of Chinese military modernization is primarily a defensive one. It is directed towards preventing the violation of its territorial rights and not, as the hawkish Bush administration claims, to project military power into the Pacific and to erode American military hegemony.

China's naval acquisitions provide evidence of the defensive nature of China's military modernization.

I wish to conclude my argument by examining historical facts. By examining history, we can discern the nature of Chinese foreign policy. Historically, China foreign policy has been reactive as opposed to proactive. Mao Tze Dong authorized China's entry into the Korean War (1950-1952) because General Douglas MacArthur ignored Chinese warnings about crossing the 38th Parallel and approaching the Yalu River. Despite repeated Chinese warnings, MacArthur crossed the 38th Parallel and rapidly approached the Yalu River. Since China felt that American forces were threatening its borders and could plausibly act in concert with Taiwan, Chinese military units commenced their offensive operations to preempt American forces. In fact, if American forces had kept to the UN mandate or simply allowed South Korean troops to pursue northwards of the 38th Parallel, it is reasonable to argue that China would have played no role in the Korean Peninsula at all. In the minds of Chinese policymakers, the threatening acts of American field commanders necessitated Chinese military action, regardless of cost. Upon conclusion of the Korean War armistice, it is interesting to note that China did not employ North Korea as a satellite state. Chinese military forces, hav-

ing fulfilled its political purpose, turned around and went home. Another example worth examining is the border war that China fought with Vietnam in 1979. Because Vietnam persisted in its illegal occupation of Cambodia and continued to deepen its alliance with the Soviet Union, China feared a threat from an united Soviet bloc on its southern border. Hence, China authorized a surgical strike on the border areas of Lang Son in North Vietnam. With the withdrawal of Vietnamese forces from Cambodia, however, China accomplished its political objective and, once again, Chinese forces turned around and went home. Thus, it is clear that defensive aims dictate Chinese foreign policy. In both instances, the threat of a foreign power (be it capitalist America or communist USSR/Vietnam) led to military action. Once China's political point was made, China has, remarkably, ceded territorial gains and withdrawn. Such a military tradition indicates that Chinese foreign policy is not driven by the offensive imperative but by the defensive.

1 New York Times, April 14 2001.
2 In this paper, I define "threat" as a political entity that, unilaterally and unprovoked, attempts to do military/political harm.
3 Pt. 12, Shanghai Communiqué, February 28 1972.
4 New York Times, April 2 2001.
5 This refers to weapons that inflict damage on an enemy from outside a conflict area, without exposing your combatants to physical risk. Examples of these are American Tomahawk cruise missiles and Chinese DF-31 Inter-Continental Ballistic Missiles.
6 http://www.armscontrol.org/FACTS/mtcr.html http://www.acronym.org.uk/52china.htm Statement by Chinese Ministry of Foreign Affairs Spokesperson, November 21, 2000.
Also, see Janes' Defense Weekly, November 29 2000.
7This is analogous to the concept of Mutually Assured Destruction in the Cold War where the USSR and US played a game of technology leapfrog. Both sides raced to developed first strike and second-strike missiles. This ensured that both sides would be deterred from launching an unilateral attack since second-strike weapons would guarantee a swift reprisal from the other side.
8 To give the reader an idea how close this was, a F-1, the primary fighter aboard an aircraft carrier, has an attack speed of .72 Mach, or approximately 8 miles/min. If US Navy fighters were launched at the closest point to China's shoreline, within 2 minutes, American fighters would be striking distance of Chinese targets.
9 Kilo-class submarines have a 400-mile operating range. It can only venture as far as the Okinawa Island chain before having to return to port.
10 155-158, Max Hastings, The Korean War, Touchstone Books (Oct 1998). This is the river that separates the territorial boundaries between China and North Korea. Max Hastings argues in his book that American policymakers and generals ignored repeated warnings by then Chinese Premier, Zhou En Lai.
11 Harry Truman relieved MacArthur of his command because MacArthur insisted on expanding the scope of the war. MacArthur's actions, without the benefit of political oversight, would have brought America into an all-out global war.
12 158, Max Hastings, The Korean War, Touchstone Books (Oct 1998). Official transcripts of meetings suggest that China was prepared to endure high level of casualties and even, a American nuclear strike.

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Book Review: Jonathan Rauch's *Government's End*

Vijay Sekhon

THE OVERWHELMING MAJORITY OF THE AMERICAN PUBLIC HOLDS A MARKEDLY NEGATIVE view of the federal government. Among the numerous criticisms of the government made by Americans today are gridlock due to excessive partisanship, a lack of trustworthiness, a bureaucracy filled with red tape, and outdated public programs that lead to an enormous waste of tax dollars. When one takes a brief glimpse at the recent history of the federal government, it becomes clear that the contemporary public discontentment with the government is neither an intrinsic characteristic of the American people nor altogether unwarranted.

I. A Paralyzed Government

As recently as the 1930's, the federal government was at the forefront of change in the national economy, and its domestic efforts were widely appreciated by a vast majority of the American public. Under Franklin D. Roosevelt, a multitude of federal programs were enacted such as the Tennessee Valley Authority, the Civilian Conservation Corps, and the Civil Works Administration. In the 1960's, government yet again led the nation into a period of domestic reform under President Lyndon Johnson's Great Society Program; the nation would later rally behind his War on Poverty campaign. However, after this period of popular government activism, the federal government stopped sponsoring new domestic programs and even tried to retract some of the policies enacted in the 1930's and the 1960's. The government reached a state of stagnation and, even though entrepreneurial leadership abounded in the likes of former Presidents Ronald Reagan and Bill Clinton, and former Speaker of the House Newt Gingrich, comparatively little could get done.

II. Rauch's Answer

What had happened? Why was government in a state of paralysis? The answer, according to Jonathan Rauch in *Government's End*, was that a rapid proliferation of interest groups he terms "hyperpluralism" occurred. Interest groups multiplied as a result of the new government programs established by the New Deal and Great Society campaigns combined with a period of relative stability after World War II. The rapid propagation of interest groups led to what Rauch calls "demosclerosis," the paralysis of government, in which various interests stormed Congress to lobby for the maintenance of the outmoded federal programs that created them. This consequently led to government stagnation due to its inability to reform itself.

Rauch describes hyperpluralism as a cycle that feeds off itself, in which "more groups demand more benefits; more benefits spawn more groups." The beginning of hyperpluralism stems from the benefits of government programs. When enacted, these programs create new interest groups that in turn both defend the programs that made them and demand more benefits, creating a vicious cycle. The New Deal and Great Society campaigns created the government programs to initiate this self-perpetuating process, and the result: the proliferation of interest groups characteristic of contemporary American society.

However, Rauch also maintains that groups need a period of relative stability in order to propagate and cogently cites the renowned political scientist Mancur Olson to substantiate his claim. In *The Logic of Collective Action*, Olson emphasizes that "stable societies with unchanged boundaries tend to accumulate more collusions and organizations for collective action over time." The end of World War II provided American interest groups with this crucial period of relative stability; the United States entered a period of prosperity unmatched in its history. The result of the promulgation of government programs during the 1930's and 1960's combined with the period of post-World War II prosperity led to what Rauch calls demosclerosis. Hence, government is paralyzed and cannot adapt to the rapidly changing society that commands it because "when (it tries) to trim programs, interest groups complain bitterly and fight hard." Rauch contends that the newly fabricated interest groups pressure congressmen to maintain the programs that were created to benefit them. Consequently, "old programs and policies cannot be excised except at enormous political cost" and, as a society, "we are stuck with everything the government ever tries."

Rauch provides several other examples of how interest groups have managed to preserve obsolete federal programs, including the old-fashioned Veteran's hospital system, the sugar subsidy, and the wool and mohair subsidy.

III. *Government's End*s Strengths and Weaknesses

Rauch effectively cites numerous anachronistic government programs to support his claim that the proliferation of interest groups has disabled the federal government, leaving it with archaic, outdated programs that it cannot divest from itself. One of the insightful examples that Rauch uses was President George Bush's 1991 failed attempt at bank reform. Under stipulations mandated by New Deal legislation, banks were unable to partake in a variety of money-making activities including operating mutual funds and selling insurance. However, when Bush attempted to repeal such archaic restrictions on banks, he met "a frenzied attack by lobbyists... small bankers, fearing competition, tore away (Bush's) interstate banking (proposal)...insurance firms, fearing competition, tore away insurance and underwriting... while securities firms, fearing competition, tore away the proposal to let banks sell stocks and bonds." The entrenched interests in Washington that would be affected by Bush's bank reform proposal were immediately put on red alert and worked to kill the measure by lobbying Congress. The outcome of this fiasco is that "as the twenty-first century approached, the country limped along with financial rules written in the age of gramophones and green eyeshadow."

In addition to bank regulations, Rauch provides several other examples of how interest groups have managed to preserve obsolete federal programs, including the old-fashioned Veteran's hospital system, the sugar subsidy, and the wool and mohair subsidy. In each case, interest groups repeatedly succeed in obstructing government reform of outdated federal programs, resulting in the American people being left with a government that is several generations behind today's problems.

Despite his acute observation concerning the state of contemporary interest group politics, Rauch fails to emphasize the degree to which interest groups tend to reflect the needs of the upper-class. Rauch believes that in contemporary American society "*everyone* is organized, and *everyone* is part of an interest group," and that the days of aristocratic dominance of interest groups in government are over. In spite of the increasing representation of poor and middle-class constituencies in

Congressional lobbies, E. E. Schattschneider's reflection of "the business (and) upper-class bias of the pressure system" in his book *The Semisovereign People* still portrays the nature of the American political system. In direct accordance with Mancur Olson's theory of collective action (the very political scientist Rauch repeatedly cites to back his claims), poor interest groups have an inherently tougher time forming and, consequently, influencing government. As a result of their large numbers and financial constraints, poor interest groups face a plethora of difficulties, including attracting members and enticing them to pay dues. These enormous barriers make it more difficult for poor interest groups to form and, consequently, keep them a huge step behind their wealthier counterparts in the lobbying game.

One might argue that interests dealing with the poor and the masses such as the AFL/CIO, Teamsters, and the Rainbow-Push Coalition actually do exert a substantial amount of pressure on Congress. However, it must be conceded that these interests are not as potent in Washington as their membership numbers should allow them to be. Wealthier interests have neither the collective action problems nor the financial constraints of their poorer counterparts, and thus have a more penetrable and influential lobby on Congressmen. Consequently, the archaic federal programs that remain, such as the sugar and wool subsidies, tend to benefit the members of the upper eschelons of American society. Thus, although Rauch's contentions of hyperpluralism and demosclerosis are valid, he does a poor job analyzing the socioeconomic makeup of interest group politics in contemporary American government.

IV. Conclusion

In spite of his inadequate recognition of the upper-class bias of the interest groups that disable Congress, Rauch's collection of evidence convincingly substantiates his assertion that the proliferation of interest groups has paralyzed government's ability to change with society at large. The enactment of a multitude of federal programs following the legislation of the New Deal and Great Society eras, combined with the relative stability following World War II, indeed led to the proliferation of interest groups termed hyperpluralism in Jonathan Rauch's *Government's End*. These interest groups subsequently prevent government from modernizing its antiquated programs through their intense lobbying of Congress, thus paralyzing government.

Although numerous attempts have been made at limiting the power of interest groups to sustain antiquated federal programs, nothing can feasibly be implemented to dramatically alter the state of the federal government. Innovative remedies such as campaign finance reform may ameliorate the situation, but in the end, government will remain calcified beyond repair. However, Rauch suggests that the consequences of hyperpluralism and demosclerosis are not necessarily adverse or dramatic. "The Social Security checks will still go out, the budget will still be passed (most years), and patchwork reforms and emergency bills will still be approved...social change finds ways to flow around obstacles and obsolescence." In other words, life for the vast majority of Americans will remain unaffected as society naturally adapts to circumvent the outmoded policies of the federal government. Nevertheless, as for the government and legislators on Capitol Hill, in the words of Wyoming Senator Alan Simpson (R), "We are frozen in place."

Although Rauch's contentions of hyperpluralism and demosclerosis are valid, he does a poor job analyzing the socioeconomic makeup of interest group politics in contemporary American government.

World Hegemony: Escaping the American Perspective

Milan A. Milenkovic

WHAT MAKES A WORLD HEGEMON? INTERNATIONAL RELATIONS SCHOLARS LIKE TO believe that history started with the founding of their discipline. Consequently, it should come as no surprise that they lack tools to understand what may be the most important challenge of world politics today. This challenge is American hegemony. Here I start with an assumption that understanding American hegemony must start with understanding hegemony in an historical perspective. Eventually, defining hegemony will entail discussions of political theory and sociology, as well as American foreign policy. But I start by asking what definitions of hegemony can history offer.

Much of history of the world has been defined by the struggle for hegemony. Individuals, societies, states, and empires have fought for survival, influence, and self-propagation. And as a result, the interaction between regional and global competitors, both in war and in peace, has given rise to our modern world, to past civilizations, and to history as we know it. Yet in this on-going struggle, only a handful of players have been able to make a successful bid on hegemony, and in doing so have permanently transformed the world. In fact, the number of states who successfully achieved clear supremacy on the worldly arena of their times is so rare that any study of hegemony must start precisely with a historical examination of past cases. Any definition of hegemony can be formulated only as a result of historical investigation of past manifestation of this phenomenon. Intentionally leaving aside the past debates on American hegemonic decline and the hegemonic stability theory, my purpose is to revisit the concept of hegemony from a historical perspective. I will focus on four cases of world hegemonic powers: the ancient Rome, China during the Ming dynasty, the Habsburg Spain, and the British Empire. In all their diversity, these cases have at least one thing in common: These four states have won their place in the hall of rulers of the world.

The four historical studies show that hegemony is an over-determined phenomenon that arises as a result of special set of historical circumstances – usually associated with a turning point in history of the region or the world – that give a particular state a comparative advantage over its rivals. The cases show that the minimum prerequisite for rise to hegemony is some combination of domestic political stability, an ideology that promotes exceptionality and expansionism, a wealth of economic resources that meet state ambitions, superior military and diplomatic means to project of these ambitions abroad, and finally a high level of pragmatic commitment to innovation and adaptation. All hegemonic states encounter domestic and international difficulties at some point of their existence, and the mechanism for maintenance of hegemony is precisely the mechanism by which states use their resources to overcome these difficulties. The ability to overcome challenges to hegemony rests with a state's ability (1) to continue harnessing economic resources for financing its military and bureaucratic apparatus, (2) to

successfully unify and emancipate its populace under a common state ideology that supports maintenance of hegemonic status; (3) to resist fortification of its possessions and instead continue peaceful and military expansion of its possessions; and (4) to continue harnessing the original comparative advantage that propelled it to hegemony at the expense of its rivals.

Realizing the limitations of any historical approach and especially those that address a general theory of world history is a necessary precondition to this study. In fact, this realization empowers us to look at diverse set of factors without prejudiced belief in "natural" evolution and decline of world powers. Nevertheless, the very purpose of this study is not to record the history of these periods but to draw far-reaching conclusions about the principle of hegemony. In doing so, this study subscribes to a belief that there is a casual mechanism at play in each of the cases, and furthermore, that this casual mechanism is internally coherent in logic and therefore applicable across geographical and temporal boundaries. And although there are times at which historians cannot distinguish reasonably between dependent and independent variables, or the relationship between them, it is precisely this challenge that stands out as a driving force of this study. Therefore, our investigation of each of the four cases of hegemony will focus on brief, yet systemic and critical examination of the underlying reasons and ways for hegemonic rise, obstacles that each state encountered, and mechanism that the rising hegemons employed to counter these threats either successfully or unsuccessfully. The underlying belief is that there exists a certain set of unique factors that propelled each of these powers to a position of regional and world supremacy. This view is based on the principle of uneven development, described by Paul Kennedy in his *Rise and Fall of Great Powers*

> The relative strengths of the leading nations in world affairs never remain constant, principally because of the uneven rate of growth among different societies and of the technological and organizational breakthroughs which bring a greater advantage to one society than to another.

It is this belief in hegemonic powers as nothing less than sources of historical dynamism, and, in turn, history as a source of fuel for these powers' ascension to power that drives the thrust of this paper's argument.

Rome: Hegemony of a Civilization

Roman hegemony was nothing short of the establishment of an entire civilization. The extent of Roman supremacy is impressive and unparalleled both in terms of its length and its preponderance. The height of this hegemony was emergence of the *Pax Romana* during the rule of Augustus. The main ideology behind Roman hegemony was that of Roman exceptionality, which was constantly reinforced by a remarkably emancipating concept of citizenship and commitment to expansion of Roman civilization. The main mechanism of maintaining Roman hegemony was a combination of military expansionism and dynamic political and social domestic life. More than four centuries of Roman rule of the Mediterranean showed remarkable innovation and creativity, from military structure to engineering and literature. As a result, many elements of the Roman civilization survived to this date, forming the foundations of the modern Western World.

The underlying belief is that there exists a certain set of unique factors that propelled each of these powers to a position of regional and world supremacy.

Heavily influenced first by Etruscans

and then by Greek city-states, Rome developed from a village of several divided tribes into a city-state with an established set of laws, structured military, and complex government. From its beginnings, Rome sought after opportunities to expand, both in population and in territory. Through a series of military conquests, alliances, and coercive diplomacy, Rome established hegemony over the Latinum by sixth century B.C. This rise did not however come without crises: the very survival of Rome was brought into question when the Conflict of Orders escalated between the plebs and the patricians, only to be complemented by emergence of anarchy throughout Italy and the first sacking of Rome by the barbarian Guals. Rome recovered quickly under the period of Republic – marked by advanced system of emancipating government – and with more zeal than ever preceded to unify the entire Italy under its rule. Shortly after, Romans launched their first overseas military campaigns, establishing themselves as a Mediterranean power.

The time of the late Republic brought new obstacles, namely new Italian Wars and a series of military dictatorships that arose as a result of Rome's increasing reliance on imperialism in the Western Mediterranean, Central Europe, Northern Africa and Asia. Caesar rose to supreme power, but order was not established until Augustus formally changed the Roman constitution by establishing the Empire. The last two centuries of Roman hegemony, in the guise of an empire, were marked by continual domestic reform in order to appease the populace and decrease reliance on territorial expansion as a means of sustaining the Empire. Ultimately a combination of domestic disorder and inability to sustain the frontiers of the empire brought about the fall of Rome.

Crisis after crisis, Rome was able to reclaim its power by reestablishing this system of legitimacy and an extraordinarily convincing perception of Roman strength even at times of its near-collapse.

In conclusion, the maintenance of Roman hegemony rested in maintenance of legitimacy of the idea of Roman exceptionality among its citizens and a projection of awesome military and economic power abroad that would ensure territorial expansion though conquest, surrender, and voluntary annexation. At the height of its power, the Roman Empire did not need to subdue either the frontier tribes or the provincials or the city populace; all that was necessary was a promise of all the benefits of the Roman civilization in case of voluntary surrender and a threat of Rome's colossally destructive military power if the enemy was to resist. Crisis after crisis, Rome was able to reclaim its power by reestablishing this system of legitimacy and an extraordinarily convincing perception of Roman strength even at times of its near-collapse. The establishment of the Empire contributed to both of these instruments by establishing the image of an Emperor as an additional legitimizing mechanism; Romans seem to have invented a new concept of citizenship, but also a new concept of an empire – in service of the Rome, its people, and their exhaled civilization.

The end of Roman hegemony became apparent when these instruments started to fail, both at home and along Roman frontiers. Rome was slowly being converted into a fortress and a prison. Its ability to attract, influence, and coerce frontier tribes disappeared. The still most powerful military force in the world could not even provide security for its own citizens as the provinces became routinely attacked and plundered by the barbarians. Roman empire was so vast and so dependent on maintenance of Ro-

man hegemony that all attempts to establish territorial defenses would be doomed to failure from the start. To many military historians and strategists, including Edward Luttwak, establishment of frontier guards and, later, defense-in-depth might be seem as an astonishing military innovation of the Romans. But in truth, these innovations were nothing but last attempts to salvage vanishing security in along the Roman provinces – and ultimately in Rome itself. The case study of Rome proves that hegemony is an idea as much as it is a direct product of military and economic power. Ironically, Roman attempts to territorialize their empire, solidify their borders, and, in effect, materialize their hegemony, lead Rome to its decline and fall. The Roman civilization was no more envied or desired – at least not until the Renaissance.

Ming China and Resurrection of the Homeland

Chinese hegemony during the Ming Dynasty was a means to reestablish Chinese control over their homeland. It was a period of recuperation form the Mongol rule marked by resurrection of Chinese state and cultural traditions that would significantly contribute to formation of the modern Chinese state and nation. Beyond its borders, the early Ming dynasty also established unparalleled dominance of entire Asia, both by sea and by land. The height of Chinese hegemony was during the rule of Emperor Ch'en-tsu, from 1402 to 1424, when domestic order was established at home through a series of cultural and economic reforms to advance the status of Chinese peasants. At the same time, Chinese prominence abroad was reflected in subjugation of entire Southeast Asia, eastern coast of Africa, Japan, and the Mongols. The ideology of Chinese hegemony rested in personality of one man: T'ai-tsu, the Hungwu Emperor and the founder of the dynasty, who vowed to restore Chinese homeland after four centuries of foreign domination. The mechanism by which Chinese hegemony was maintained rested in the actions of that same man, T'ai-tsu: He was a ruthless despot who achieved extraordinary centralization of Chinese government, and proceed to rule quite pragmatically by restoring some Confucian traditions of the T'ang and Sung dynasties, while innovating useful Yüan institutions – most notably the military and the censorial system. The sudden collapse of Ming hegemony overseas after Ch'en-tsu's rule became one of the most interesting events in history – the Chinese voluntarily abandoned their overseas ventures and retreated to isolationism. Effectively, they threw away their hegemonic status in exchange for an illusion of domestic order under more traditional Confucian state values.

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One of the main reasons the Ming dynasty succeed to establish its overseas influence is that it first succeed in consolidating power in China. Overseas conquest is something that the previous Yüan dynasty, as a foreign dynasty, could never achieve despite its ideological commitment to openness and expansionism. Chinese hegemony rested in hegemony of the Ming dynasty, which in turn rested on hegemony of T'ai-tsu. He rose to power by defeating both Yüan forces and powerful warlords throughout China. His success was marked by creation of an extremely centralized, self-sufficient army and all necessary state institutions, which were gradually establishing themselves as the new imperial bureaucracy. The key to T'ai-tsu's popularity and legitimacy of the Ming dy-

nasty was T'ai-tsu's commitment to consolidation of all Chinese lands under a native dynasty – an idea that with no doubt appealed to peasants who spent their entire lives under the oppression of the Mongols.

Spanish hegemony under the Habsburgs was brief and turbulent, but it marked an unprecedented mastery of both Europe and the world.

A serious threat to T'ai-tsu's dynasty came with his death and lack of a clear successor. This problem was resolved with emergence of a Ch'eng-tsu, who led the Chinese to the aforementioned success in Asia. Chinese hegemony was abruptly brought to an end in 1424 with emergence of the civil bureaucratic elite, which favored Confucian traditions and demanded isolation of China from the world. Furthermore, although several emperors of the mature Ming had reasonably successful reigns, the power of the emperor was considerably eroded. And in a system where the survival of hegemony is contingent on the power of the emperor and his heirs, loss of emperors' control over state affairs is a certain way of bringing about a demise of hegemonic power. As a result, China during the late Ming was completely unprepared for the coming Europeans and the renewed attacks from the Japanese in Korea and along the Chinese coast. What followed was another foreign conquest of China, this time by the Manchus.

In conclusion, Chinese short-lived hegemony of Asia was a result of a combination of Confucian traditions that ensured stability at home, and commitment to overseas trade, militarism, and conquest – primarily inherited form the Yüan dynasty. But Chinese relinquished their hegemonic role in search of a more fulfilling sense of security. They reaffirmed their goal of resurrecting their homeland and their nation and rejected hegemonic pursuit either as an end in itself or a means of achieving their goals at home. The result was the formation of a uniquely isolated view of the world that still exists in Chinese consciousness today. Centuries after the fall of the Ming dynasty, many Chinese long for still-uncompleted resurrection of the Chinese homeland, while some other are determined to guard the boarders of their world, which to them will always remain within the frontiers of the Chinese homeland.

Spanish Hegemonic Struggle

Spanish hegemony under the Habsburgs was brief and turbulent, but it marked an unprecedented mastery of both Europe and the world – a goal to which many an European power aspired, but none other than Spain would achieve. The height of Spanish hegemony was during the rule of Phillip II in sixteenth century, but even then the power of the crown fluctuated in light of impending bankruptcies and unresolved wars throughout the Europe. During the reigns of Charles V and Phillip II, Spain established trade monopoly over much of trade in Asia, conquered two South American civilizations, won commercial supremacy in the Mediterranean and entire Europe, and stopped Ottoman expansion into Europe. This last feat virtually ended the Ottoman ambitions to rule the Mediterranean and Central Europe. The main ideology behind Spanish hegemony was defense of the Western Christendom, tempered with pragmatic commitment to meeting military ambitions with economic resources. The main mechanism of Spanish rise and maintenance of hegemony were the consolidation of power on the Iberian Peninsula (in part through the Inquisition), the wars of Counter-Reformation throughout Europe, and discovery, settlement, and conquest of the New World. Threats to Spanish hegemony that Charles

V and Phillip II overcame were a series of revolts in Spain, two revolts in the Netherlands, continually shifting alliances against them in Central Europe, and several bankruptcies of the crown. Domestic revolts in Aragon were overcome by establishing a domestic reform that appeased different ethnic groups such as the Catalans, but these were only cosmetic in a sense – the Spanish Inquisition was the main instrument of state oppression, significantly contribution to 'pacification' of the monarchy. Despite being in a state of constant war, Spain managed to raise the strongest and best-equipped armies throughout Charles V rule. After his defeat in France, for example, he led a 600,000-strong army to invade Italy. In the early times of the empire there were both enough money and enough men to sustain these armies. The impending bankruptcies were avoided by increasing taxation and exploitation of the colonies. And when the treasury was exhausted, the same would often be the case with other crowns of Europe; therefore, in this early period, Spain did not lose any power on the battlefields of Europe compare to its rivals.

Spain's failure to consolidate its territories either in Europe or overseas, her lack of more effective means of financing the ongoing war efforts in Europe, repeated military defeats in the Netherlands culminating in Dutch independence, and lack of a common popular identity among its subjects divided among the former kingdoms of the Middle Ages combined to result in the failure of the Spanish empire to survive the turbulent times of impending modernity that was about to sweep through the eighteenth century Europe. Permanently trapped in the twilight of the Middle Ages, Spain continued to wage wars on multiple fronts throughout the seventeenth century. Spanish failures to consolidate its resources during its years of decline have even led historians to classify the Spanish case study as an example *par excellence* of "imperial overstretch." But despite its ultimate failure to hold on to military and economic power, Spain came closer than any power in history since Rome to claim a simultaneous control over most of Europe and European possessions overseas. After Spanish defeat, the resulting 1648 Treaty of Westphalia gave rise to the idea of sovereignty of modern European states, giving birth to the international relations system of today and ensuring that all future bids to European hegemony will be doomed to failure.

Britain from an Unwitting Hegemon to Global Empire

The British Empire became the first state to achieve effective global hegemony; the British became perhaps the first people in the history of the world to be able to claim that they were truly the rulers of a global empire. But the irony of this is that the British Empire never designed a policy to actively pursue 'domination' of the world that it has been charged with in times of desalinization and anti-imperialist movements of the twentieth century. It emerged unwittingly from a contest to restore the balance of power in Europe. It achieved the height of its power in the first half of the nineteenth century, at the time when it power could be project with little or no use of force throughout the world. It was built upon the ideology of free trade, becoming a primarily commercial empire. The British Empire used commercial ties, diplo-

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hegemonic power quite unwittingly after the Wars of Spanish Succession (1701-1714) and the Seven Years War (1756-1763). It found itself with an established colonial supremacy in both North America and India, the two possessions that sustained the British Empire throughout eighteenth and nineteenth centuries. The first serious challenge came with the War of the American Revolution, but the Empire recovered by abolishing any ambitions to establish tight governmental control over all of its colonies; instead, trade became the primary purpose of the Empire. As a result, the Empire flourished economically until the Indian Mutiny (1857-1858), which propelled it to strengthen governmental control over all of its possessions. This would lead to serious difficulties form Australia to Canada – eventually resulting in reversal of British policy and allowance of broad self-governance for these territories. Unfortunately, no reforms could salvage the declining influence of Britain over its commercial subjects. By the end of the ninetieth century, it had to resort to use of force and establishment of temporary governments throughout former protectorates in order to salvage the declining trade balance. Competition with rising European powers resulted in two wars, re-establishment of the balance of power in Europe, and irreparable decline of the British Empire.

The Empire has also endowed Britain with a global responsibility of becoming a permanent partner of the United States in maintaining the new international order.

In the end, the remains of the British Empire are still to be envied by many. The disintegration of the Empire was never complete, as the Commonwealth – a mainly symbolic community of former British possessions – remains in place even today. At the same time, the British-American alliance, which was a direct result of the global influence of the British Empire, emerged as the most powerful military alliance in the world and a necessary guarantor of international peace and security. Finally, Britain today remains a state of global perspectives. In the past, its Empire had propelled it to become the first country to undergo demographic transition and the origin of the Industrial Revolution. The Empire has also endowed Britain with a global responsibility of becoming a permanent partner of the United States in maintaining the new international order – perhaps based on the very idea that the Empire gave birth too and fought to defend. International, free trade.

Conclusion

The minimum condition for rise to hegemony is some combination of domestic political stability, an ideology that promotes exceptionality and usually expansionism, a wealth of economic resources that meet state ambitions, superior military and diplomatic means of projection of these ambitions abroad, and a level of pragmatic commitment to innovation and adaptation. In a sense, these five conditions are a result of a state's ability to take advantage of historical circumstances of its time by gaining a competitive advantage over its rivals – the five variables above can be seen as dependent on these two independent variables.

First, of the four states, Rome and China established domestic political stability before pursuing any hegemonic aspirations. For both of them, this was a crucial condition, demonstrated in the fact that Roman power often decreased during civil wars and other political disorder at home. Likewise the Yüan dynasty's overseas expansion failed partially due to its inability to consolidate power at home. Strategically, Spanish monarchs saw unification of the Iberian Pen-

lions from Catalonia to Portugal eventually catalyzed the Spanish demise. In the case of Britain, historians are in agreement that it represents a historical outlier – it pursued aggressive expansion at the time of continued hostilities at home between the English and their northern neighbors. Nevertheless, institution of the Parliamentary monarchy in 1688 and later Parliamentary union between England and Scotland had established unprecedented (if not complete) political stability in England. In fact, British imperialism in the end served as a unifying ideology that helped political emancipation of the Scots, Welch, and the Irish – for the first time in British histories, they ceased to be the colonized and became the colonizers.

Second, in their rise to hegemony, each of the four sates had a unique ideology that without exception promoted a feeling of exceptionality and commitment to expansionism. When the notion of supremacy of Roman civilization ceased and provincials gave up their loyalty to Rome, Roman hegemony came to an end. And when the Ming dynasty resorted to isolationism, its hegemonic role was over. Third, throughout the period of their hegemonic rise, all states had enough economic resources to fund expensive military campaigns. But late into their hegemonic roles, each would encounter problems on this font and be forced to deal with them in order to maintain power. Fourth, each of the states felt confident at the time that it and achieved military and diplomatic superiority; in many cases this confidence was more important that actual presence or lack of superiority. Of the four, China was the only one not to utilize these two resources for the fullest, again following the retreat to isolationism in 1424. But of the four, the one who most severely suffered because of a wrong perception of its own military power and what it could and could not do was Spain. Spanish military was superior in numbers, in equipment, and in training to any single army in Europe. But when stretched across the continent and when fighting collations of states, its superiority was greatly reduced. Finally, all four states demonstrated quite a commitment to innovation and adaptation, albeit in different realms of state institutions.

The first question of whether a state's economic resources continue to meet expenditures is the basis of the well-known theory of imperial overstretch.

The second main conclusion of the study is that the ability of a state to overcome domestic and international challenges to its hegemony rests with a state's ability to continue harnessing economic resources for financing its military, to successfully unify and emancipate its populace under a common state ideology that supports maintenance of hegemonic status, to resist fortification of its possessions and instead continue peaceful and military expansion of its possessions, and to continue harnessing the original comparative advantage that propelled it to hegemony at the expense of its rivals.

The first question of whether a state's economic resources continue to meet expenditures is the basis of the well-known theory of imperial overstretch. Of the four cases examined, Spain is the clearest victim of imperial overstretch. The crown treasury became dangerously strained since the beginning of Charles V's military campaigns; disaster was postponed with arrivals of precious metals from the New World and because other European royal houses were experiencing the same situation. But during the rule of Phillip II, Spain faced two bankruptcies, resulting in a disastrous domestic situation in Spain. The resulting revolts form Catalonia to Portugal were a major factor in Spanish decline form the hegemonic status

insula as the key to the power of Spain, shown by the emergence of the empire after union of Castile and Aragon, and Spanish commitment to reconquista. But actual unity was never achieved, and reoccurring rebelincreasing civil unrest leading to large-scale civil disorder in the fifth century Western-Roman Empire. In case of China, this problem simply did not exist because she retreated from hegemony at the height of its power. Finally, the case of imperial stretch in the case of Britain is difficult to argue. In general, the British Empire continued to meet its military demands with economic resources before the two world wars. When they came, the situation drastically changed, evident in British arms race to maintain naval superiority over Germany – an expensive venture that eventually failed. Regardless, this factor did not play an important role in British decline as hegemonic power because the British Empire was not built on relentless military expansion that characterized Rome and Habsburg Spain.

Second, all four states continued to push for strong emancipating ideologies, but only Rome and the British Empire benefited form their efforts. But Roman strategy of emancipation ultimately started to fail with the absence of an emperor able to resurrect the image of Augustus or Julius Caesar. In China, emancipation efforts were extremely successful as a result of significant improvement of quality of life after the end of the Mongol rule. Unfortunately, the isolationism late Ming dynasty did not channel public support into overseas ventures. Spain and Britain had only limited success as described above under the section of domestic stability necessary for hegemonic rise.

Third, although not fortifying boarders in light of an impending invasion obviously does not lead to maintenance of hegemony, the ability to maintain security without fortification of borders is a direct measurement of extent of hegemony. Rome and China failed to resist fortification of their boarders, and this indicated, in case of Rome, the impending collapse and, in case of China, deliberate isolation. Spain did not have any boarders to fortify, as it was already isolated geographically. And the case of Britain shows that the only period in which it was forced to take more direct governmental control over the colonies (after 1850) signified its inability to achieve those goals by other, cheaper means. In any case, the British Empire never became a territorial empire with established boarders; when establishment of a territorial empire became a condition the Empire's survival, Britain became ready to give up the idea of imperialism all together. Finally, each of the three cases (excluding the isolationism late Ming) failed to maintain a competitive advantage over its regional or global competitors. In Rome, these were the barbarians; in 17th century Europe, they were England, France, and the Netherlands; and in the case of Britain, they were first Germany and then the United States and the U.S.S.R.

Finally, only one important conclusion remains to be drawn, and this is the definition of hegemony as seen through our lens of history. One way in which this definition can

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